

Crime and Transportation Choice in Latin America *

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Abstract

Public transit is a central tool for urban mobility in developing countries, but crime may undermine its use and the policies that support it. We study how crime affects transit demand, price responsiveness, and policy preferences through a pre-registered survey experiment with over 5,000 participants in six Latin American capitals. First, commuters are willing to pay a premium of more than half the current fare to avoid crime exposure. Second, crime reduces the choice of public over private transport and limits the efficacy of price instruments to induce potential users to switch from private to public modes. Third, higher perceived crime crowds out support from forward-looking investments, including service frequency and emissions reduction. Crime imposes a cost on frequent riders, deters marginal ones, and creates a second-best environment in which common transit policies become less politically supported.

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1 Introduction

Public transportation is the backbone of urban mobility in cities of low- and middle-income countries, especially for low-income residents who lack access to private vehicles. In the metropolitan areas of Mexico City and Buenos Aires, 56% and 59% of households do not own a private vehicle, rising to 66% and 79% in the lowest quartile of the income distribution (Instituto Nacional de Estadística y Geografía, 2017; Ministerio de Transporte de la Nación, 2018).¹ Public transit determines low-income residents’ access to consumption (Miyauchi et al., 2021), jobs (Tsivanidis, 2026), health (Bedoya Arguelles et al., 2024), and education (Borker, 2021), among other relevant daily life activities. Fare subsidies have therefore become a central policy tool for economic development: they expand mobility for workers who cannot afford private alternatives (Franklin, 2018; Moreno-Monroy & Posada, 2018) and can pull commuters away from private modes, reducing congestion and emissions (Almagro et al., 2024; Parry & Small, 2009). Its efficacy, however, depends on transit being a system riders are willing to use.

In these same cities, crime is pervasive on public transit. In our own sample of 5,161 commuters across six Latin American capitals, 54% report having been victims of a crime on public transit in the past year, and 70% report having witnessed one. Safety concerns might therefore pose a barrier to transit demand: among Latin American commuters who have access to public transit but choose not to use it, 29% cite safety as their main reason for avoidance (CAF, 2017). This burden is uneven: women, who use transit at higher rates than men, report higher victimization and concern, and adopt costly avoidance strategies that constrain their access to jobs and education (Borker, 2024; Buchmann et al., 2026; Garlick et al., 2025; Kondylis et al., 2025). While there is descriptive evidence suggesting that crime depresses ridership, disproportionately limiting the mobility of those with the fewest alternatives, how exactly safety concerns affect transit demand across Latin America is still an open question.

Safety concerns matter for transit demand in three ways. First, safety may have a direct effect on demand: crime risk reduces the value of transit for some commuters, while others might stop considering transit altogether. Second, crime may directly reduce the responsiveness of transit demand to fares. When safety concerns are salient, the non-monetary costs associated with transit may dominate monetary considerations, making fare subsidies less effective at increasing ridership. Third, crime may alter citizens’ preferences over transportation policies, crowding out environmental goals or service quality in favor of safety. This paper provides survey evidence on the magnitude of the safety premium and on the effect of crime on modal choice, transit demand elasticity, and policy preferences.

We implement a pre-registered² survey experiment with over 5,000 participants across six Latin American metropolitan areas: Bogotá, Buenos Aires, Mexico City (CDMX), Guatemala City, Lima, and Santiago. These cities combine high levels of crime with extensive, subsidized public transit systems. While previous studies have exploited price changes to estimate the elasticity of demand (Davis, 2021), this variation might

¹Neither survey records income, so we use socioeconomic status as a proxy.

²AEA RCT Registry: AEARCTR-0013745.

simultaneously change safety concerns, as transit accessibility affects the distribution of crime (Khanna et al., 2026). Our experimental design induces exogenous variation in price and crime separately to estimate the effect of crime on transit demand. This survey experiment approach has been shown to capture well real-world behavior (Dechezleprêtre et al., 2025; Funk, 2016; Hainmueller et al., 2015).

The experimental design consists of three parts. In Part 1, participants choose between two transit options that vary in fare and crime rates, allowing us to estimate how much users are willing to pay to reduce crime exposure during their commute. We use mouse-tracking, a non-choice measure of priority ordering (Brocas et al., 2014), to reveal which information values more for participants to making their modal choice. In Part 2, we set the outside option to private transportation and vary again transit fares and crime rates. These two parts allow us to estimate the effect of crime on transit demand and its price elasticity. In Part 3, we examine how crime perception affects preferences over transportation policies. Participants are randomly assigned to read news articles that frame public transportation as safe, unsafe, or neutral. After this exogenous change in crime perception, they allocate a municipal budget across transportation policies such as fare subsidies, service improvements, emissions abatement, and crime reduction.

We find that commuters place substantial weight on safety when making transportation decisions, and are willing to pay a large premium for safer public transportation. Using mouse-tracking, we reveal that participants consistently seek out information about crime before considering other trip attributes such as duration, suggesting that safety concerns are central to how users evaluate transportation options. These patterns are consistent across cities and demographic groups, and have a direct correlate on how users value safety in public transportation. Commuters are willing to pay a premium equivalent to 51% of the current fare to ride safer transit, and require a 61% fare discount to tolerate a higher crime risk in transit³. We find a similar pattern when making private transportation the outside option. Overall, we find that commuters highly value safety when making transportation decisions, consistent with previous findings from field experiments (Borker, 2021; Garlick et al., 2025; Kondylis et al., 2025).

We next examine how crime affects transportation choice and the responsiveness of demand to price. When choosing between public and private transportation, we find that higher crime rates in transit decrease the likelihood of choosing this option by 15 percentage points, from a baseline of 66%. In addition to this, we find an average marginal effect of prices on the likelihood of choosing a bus is approximately -0.25, similar to that estimated from real fare changes (Davis, 2021; Holmgren, 2007). However, this effect is limited by the environment’s safety: higher crime nearly doubles the share of commuters who are entirely unresponsive to price incentives (i.e., who would not choose public transit even when free). This result shows that in context of high crime, there is a limit in the capacity of fare subsidies to promote transit use. These findings suggest that crime is not just a barrier to ridership but a constraint on the effectiveness of the policy tools used to expand it.

³In the study countries, the regular ticket fare costs, on average, USD 0.7 at the average official exchange rate of September 2024, when the survey took place. Specifically, the prices of an average bus fare in Buenos Aires, Santiago, Lima, Bogotá, Guatemala and CDMX were approximately USD 0.3, USD 0.77, USD 0.93, USD 0.72, USD 0.65 and USD 0.25, respectively.

In Part 3, we study whether perceived risk of crime crowds out support for other transportation policies. Prior research suggests that immediate concerns, such as safety, can draw attention away from longer-term objectives, such as climate change (Dechezleprêtre et al., 2025; Weber, 2010). To examine this possibility, participants are randomly assigned to read a news article about public transportation in their city that frames safety as either high, low, or is silent on the topic. We measure perceived crime risk before and after the information provision and then ask participants to allocate a fixed budget across policy areas. First, we document that perceived crime is well calibrated, with women, frequent riders, and victims of crime holding higher risk perceptions. Perceived crime at baseline is correlated with higher support for safety investments and lower support for emissions reductions and service improvements. We use the randomized information provision to show that an exogenous increase in perceived crime results in similar effects: commuters redirect investments from clean and frequent transit into safety⁴. Thus, support for service improvements depends on safety perceptions. A safer transit system won’t only increase transit use, but creates a better environment for other transit policies like fare subsidies, service improvements, or greener transportation.

Taken together, these findings show that crime is a central friction in Latin American urban mobility, with implications beyond the individuals who experience it directly. First, commuters across the region place a high value on safer transit, willing to forgo more than half the current fare to take a safer route. Second, crime reshapes transit demand on two margins: it imposes a welfare cost on captive riders, who continue using the system because they lack alternatives, and it deters marginal riders. Third, crime creates a second-best environment in which fare subsidies and other transit policies become both less effective at attracting riders and less popular with citizens, whose support shifts toward immediate safety spending. Reinforcing safety would increase welfare for the riders already on the system, expand demand to those currently deterred, and increase the effectiveness and political support of the fare subsidies and service investments through which governments seek to broaden access to urban mobility.

Related Literature. This paper contributes to the broad literature on travel mode choice initiated by McFadden (1974) and Ben-Akiva and Lerman (1985). While much of this work has focused on how pricing can shift behavior to reduce congestion and pollution (Almagro et al., 2024; Anderson, 2014; Parry & Small, 2009), the role of safety in modal choice has received less empirical attention. Most studies focus on the effect of safety concerns among women on their modal choice, showing that many women forgo job and education opportunities to avoid unsafe routes (Borker, 2021; Buchmann et al., 2026), and are willing to pay to avoid harassment in transit (Kondylis et al., 2025). We build on this literature, but use an experimental approach to isolate the effect of crime perception on transit demand. Survey experiments are increasingly used to value public goods and citizens’ preferences (Domínguez & Scartascini, 2024; Stantcheva, 2023), with growing evidence confirming these tools yield meaningful predictions (Funk, 2016; Hainmueller et al., 2015).

A growing literature shows that policy effectiveness often depends on the presence of complementary

⁴This is consistent with our mouse-tracking results, since participants are increasing the budget allocated to crime abatement by reducing the allocation to the two least-important characteristics according to our non-choice data.

interventions (Ganimian et al., 2024; Mbiti et al., 2019; Muralidharan et al., 2016, 2021). In urban transit, this means that policy tools like fare subsidies may underperform when complementary investments in safety are absent. We show this is the case in Latin America, where crime weakens the marginal effect of fare reductions on modal choice. This finding parallels evidence from Jakarta, where transit expansion failed to deliver welfare gains because of a lack of complementary investments in service quality (Gaduh et al., 2022).

The rest of the paper is structured as follows: Section 2 offers a simple conceptual framework of the externalities crime has over public transportation, to guide the interpretation of our results. Section 3 details the experimental design, and Section 4 explains the empirical analysis. Section 5 reports the results of the survey experiment along three margins: the valuation of safety on transit, the effect of crime on transit demand, and the effect of perceived crime on policy support. Finally, Section 6 discusses the broader significance of our results for urban transportation in developing contexts.

2 Conceptual Framework

We model how crime influences public transportation demand through a simple discrete choice framework that captures both *direct* and *indirect* responses. Commuter i chooses between transportation modes $j \in \mathcal{J}$ to commute across a given origin-destination pair, selecting the option that maximizes their utility. Each mode is characterized by a price p_j , a safety level s_j , and other characteristics x_j (e.g., duration, emissions). The utility of choosing mode j is:

$$u_{ij} = \begin{cases} g(p_j, s_j, x_j) + \varepsilon_{ij} & \text{if } s_j > \bar{s}_i \\ 0 & \text{if } s_j \leq \bar{s}_i \end{cases} \quad (1)$$

where $g(\cdot)$ is a deterministic function increasing in s_j and decreasing in p_j , and ε_{ij} is an i.i.d. extreme value Type I error term. Each commuter i has an idiosyncratic safety threshold $\bar{s}_i$, below which a mode is excluded from their consideration set.⁵ Thus, crime determines whether a mode is even considered, and if so, how attractive it is relative to other options.

Let $\mathcal{C}_i = \{j \in \mathcal{J} : s_j > \bar{s}_i\}$ denote the set of modes considered by agent i . Conditional on the mode being in the consideration set, the probability that agent i chooses mode j follows the standard logit form:

$$P_{ij|\mathcal{C}_i} = \frac{\exp(g(p_j, s_j, x_j))}{\sum_{k \in \mathcal{C}_i} \exp(g(p_k, s_k, x_k))} \quad (2)$$

To link this to aggregate demand, assume that the share of individuals who consider public transporta-

⁵Implicitly, we are normalizing $u_{i,j} = 0$ to be the utility of not doing the trip.

tion is given by $F(s_{\text{public}})$, the cumulative distribution of safety thresholds. Aggregating across commuters:

$$P_{\text{public}} = F(s_{\text{public}}) \cdot P_{\text{public}|\mathcal{C}_i} \quad (3)$$

Equation (3) highlights two channels through which crime affects public transportation demand. First, as s_{public} declines, fewer commuters include public transportation in their consideration set—the *direct* effect. Second, even among those who still consider it, lower s_{public} reduces the relative utility of public modes, making them less likely to be chosen—the *indirect* effect. Both effects lower the level of demand, but their effect on price responsiveness is theoretically ambiguous. Through the extensive margin, greater safety expands the pool of commuters who consider public transit, so a fare change moves more riders and the response grows. Therefore, changes in prices will affect a greater number of people, scaling the effect. Through the indirect margin, greater safety makes public transit more attractive overall, so commuters will respond less to price variations (e.g., commuters would tolerate higher prices when the public transit is safe because they value it more). Therefore, which force dominates is an empirical question.

This relationship between safety and price elasticity has been largely overlooked in the transportation-demand literature, where utility is typically assumed to be additively separable across characteristics, ruling out complementarities between safety and prices (Ben-Akiva & Lerman, 1985; McFadden, 1974). Ultimately, whether demand becomes more or less elastic as safety improves remains an empirical question.

3 Experimental Design

We implement a pre-registered online experiment composed of three sequential parts, designed to measure (1) willingness to pay for safety in public transportation, (2) how crime impacts public transportation demand, and (3) whether crime perception shifts support across policy domains. All three parts were completed in fixed order.

In Part 1, participants are shown two public buses (Bus A and Bus B), each described by four attributes: fare, travel time, CO₂ emissions, and crime rate. Importantly, the instructions explained to the participants that they could assume that these alternatives were identical in all the characteristics that were not presented in the screen. These attributes are hidden behind clickable labels, and participants must click to reveal each one. We track the order in which attributes are revealed to measure which features respondents prioritize (Brocas et al., 2014), with display order randomized to avoid position effects. Bus A always shows the average fare and crime level in the participant’s city. Bus B varies across four treatment arms: the crime level is described as being k above or below the city average ($k \in \{-30\%, -10\%, +10\%, +30\%\}$), and its fare starts at either 50% higher (for safer buses) or 50% lower (for more dangerous ones). After the initial choice, we elicit indifference prices using an iterative Gabor-Granger method (Gabor & Granger, 1964), adjusting Bus B’s fare by $\pm 10\%$ each round until the respondent switches from her initial choice or reaches five iterations. Keeping variations in price and crime orthogonal to each other rules out participants using price to infer crime rates, which could happen in empirical

setting where commuters have limited information about crime. This allows us to estimate both willingness to pay for safety and price sensitivity of demand under varying crime levels.

In Part 2, participants choose between a public bus and a private taxi. Bus attributes vary by treatment arm, while taxi attributes remain fixed. The crime rate for the bus is again framed as k above or below the city average ($k \in \{-30\%, -20\%, +20\%, +30\%\}$), while the crime rate for the taxi is fixed at the city average. The initial fares are based on local standards: the public bus fare is the city’s typical ticket price, and the taxi fare reflects a 20-minute Uber ride from city hall at 8 PM. Respondents who select the bus (or taxi) are asked to repeat the choice with the bus fare increased (or decreased) by 20%, iterating up to five times. Indifference prices are defined as in Part 1. This part allows us to estimate how crime shifts demand away from public transportation.

To test whether perceived crime influences transportation policy priorities, in Part 3 participants are randomly assigned to view one of three newspaper headlines. The *Dangerous* group sees an article describing a high crime incident on the public transport in their city; the *Safe* group sees an article framing the system as secure; the *Control* group sees an article about public transport that makes no mention of safety (see Figure B3). Participants are then asked to allocate a USD 120,000 budget across four policy areas: increasing service frequency, cutting fares, reducing crime, and cutting emissions. We also elicit perceived risk of crime in public transportation once before Part 3 and again after the news priming, enabling us to test whether shifts in perceived safety causally affect policy preferences. To incentivize truthful responses, participants are informed that the study results will be shared with officials from their city’s Department of Transportation, potentially influencing real policy decisions. This participatory budgeting task follows established methods for eliciting policy preferences (Haaland et al., 2023; Olken, 2010), and allows us to test whether higher perceived crime crowds out support for competing policies, as suggested by previous research (González & Sánchez, 2022; Weber, 2010).

Participants and Procedures. The experiment was conducted in September 2024 with 5,161 participants recruited through an online panel provider. Respondents were drawn from six Latin American capitals: Bogotá, Buenos Aires, Mexico City (CDMX), Guatemala City (Guatemala), Lima, and Santiago de Chile. Table A1 presents descriptive statistics for the subject pool. Our pool, which resides in urban areas, is slightly younger and better educated than country-representative samples (see Table A2). Importantly, our sample is familiar with the public transit system of their cities: 94% of respondents use transit at least weekly, and 49.5% use it at least 5 days a week.

4 Empirical Analysis

4.1 Effect of Crime on Public Transportation Demand

The first goal of Parts 1 and 2 is to estimate participants’ willingness to pay (WTP) for crime reduction in public transportation. Let, y_i^* be the latent indifference price between the safer and less safe alternative, and let

K be set of safety levels displayed (e.g., in Part 1, $K = \{-30\%, -10\%, +10\%, +30\%\}$).⁶ We estimate the WTP for safety with the following linear model:

$$y_i^* = \alpha + \sum_{k \in K} \beta_k 1\{\text{Crime} = k\}_i + \Phi_{c(i)} + \mathbf{X}\Gamma + \epsilon_i \quad (4)$$

Where $1\{\text{Crime} = k\}_i$ is an indicator function denoting whether respondent i was exposed to a k crime variation treatment group. We include city fixed effects Φ_c and controls $\mathbf{X}$ (age, gender, education, and whether the participant was ever a victim of a crime in public transportation).⁷ Following Domínguez and Scartascini (2024), y_i^* is bounded between the last and second-to-last price shown before participants switched their choice, or the last price shown if they never switched.

To analyze the effect of crime on mode choice in Part 2, we estimate a linear probability model:

$$1\{\text{Choose Bus}\}_i = \alpha + \sum_{k \in K} \beta_k 1\{\text{Crime} = k\}_i + \Phi_{c(i)} + \mathbf{X}\Gamma + \epsilon_i \quad (5)$$

where the outcome is an indicator for whether participant i chooses the bus over the taxi in their first decision.

Next, we estimate how price sensitivity varies with crime exposure. The unit of observation is now a participant–price cell: respondent i observed at each offered fare p_{ij} , $j = 0, 0.1, \dots, 2$.⁸ We model the probability of choosing the bus with a logit:

$$\Pr(\text{Choose Bus at Price} = p)_{i,j} = \frac{e^{z_{ij}}}{1 + e^{z_{ij}}} \quad (6)$$

where

$$z_{ij} = \beta_0 + \beta_1 p_{ij} + \sum_{k \in K} \beta_2 1\{\text{Crime} = k\}_i + \beta_3 (p_{ij} \times 1\{\text{Crime} = k\}_i) + \Phi_{c(i)} + \mathbf{X}'_i \Gamma + \epsilon_{i,j} \quad (7)$$

The interaction β_3 captures how crime shifts the effect of price on the likelihood of choosing the bus, on the log-odds scale. We adopt the logistic form because it lets the choice probability respond nonlinearly to price; since log-odds coefficients are not marginal effects, we also report the average marginal effect (AME) of price on bus choice, separately by crime level.

4.2 Crime Perception and Crowding Out

Part 3 measures perceived crime, and identifies whether it affects preferences over transportation policies. Previous research has found that more immediate concerns, like safety, may crowd out support for less salient objectives like environmental issues (González & Sánchez, 2022; Weber, 2010). In regions with high crime rates

⁶In Part 2, $K = \{-30\%, -20\%, +20\%, +30\%\}$.

⁷We conduct a randomization balance check in Table A1, which shows the only significant difference between treatment groups is whether the participant has ever been a victim of a crime on public transportation. Consequently, we include this as a control variable in our analysis.

⁸We assume choices are monotone in price: if the bus is chosen at fare p_{ij} , it is also chosen at any lower fare. This lets us treat each elicited switch point as the participant's choice at every offered fare.

such as Latin America, this distortion may be particularly pronounced. To test this hypothesis, we explore whether crime perceptions are linked to differential support for public transportation policies: increasing bus frequency, reducing ticket prices, reducing crime, and reducing CO_2 emissions.

To check whether this relation is causal, we vary crime perceptions exogenously by exposing participants to different newspaper headlines. As a manipulation check, we elicit participants' perceived probability of being victim of a crime in public transportation both before Part 3 and after being exposed to the newspaper headline, in line with the literature on belief updating (Cullen & Perez-Truglia, 2022; Haaland et al., 2023). We estimate this model:

$$\Delta \text{Crime Perception}_i = \alpha + \sum_{j \in J} \beta_j 1\{\text{Article}_i = j\} + \Phi_c + \mathbf{X}\Delta + \epsilon_i \quad (8)$$

where $\Delta \text{Crime Perception}_i$ is the difference in perceived probability of being a crime victim before and after the priming.⁹ The variable $1\{\text{Article}_i = j\}$ indicates whether participant i was in treatments $j \in \{\text{Dangerous}, \text{Safe}\}$, while the *Control* group is omitted. We control for the same set of variables as in Equation (4) and use city fixed effects.

After the experimental intervention, subjects were asked to allocate a budget of 120,000 USD across 4 policies. To make the experiment incentive compatible, we explicitly inform participants that the results of this study will be presented to transportation policymakers in their city. Perceived consequentiality has been shown to improve the validity of stated preference elicitation by aligning survey responses with true preferences (Czajkowski et al., 2017; Vossler & Watson, 2013). We estimate the following model:

$$y_i^k = \alpha + \sum_{j \in J} \beta_j 1\{\text{Article}_i = j\} + \Phi_c + \mathbf{X}\Delta + \epsilon_i \quad (9)$$

where y_i^k is the share of the budget allocated to policy $k \in \{\text{frequency, fare, safety, emissions}\}$. The coefficient β_j captures the causal effect of being exposed to article j on the budget allocated to each policy k .¹⁰ We interpret this parameter as a proxy for support of each one of the policies given the nature of the zero-sum game of this environment.

⁹We elicited safety beliefs by asking the question *In an average trip in the transit system of your city, what do you think is the probability of being victim of a crime?* We asked this question immediately before and after being exposed to the newspaper headlines.

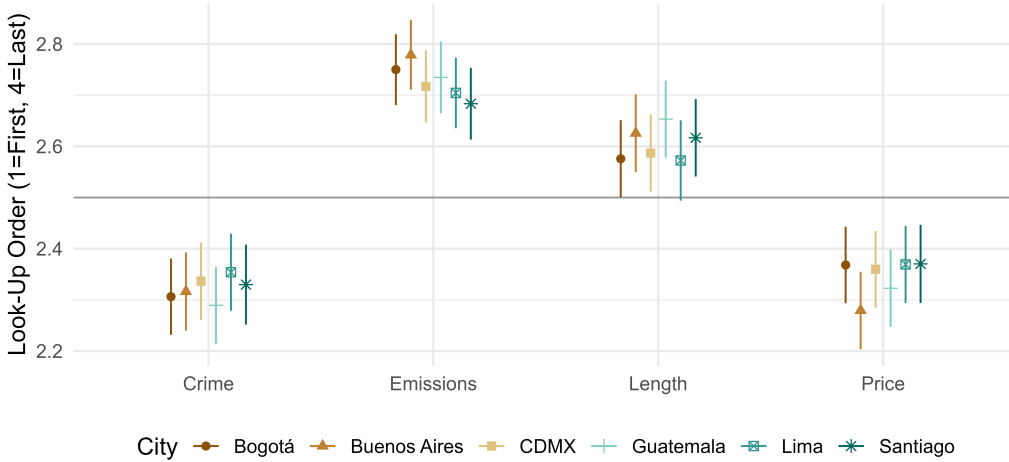
¹⁰Admittedly, our treatment may also vary other relevant variables to the budget allocation decision such as trust in the police or in the government. For that reason is that we adopt the specification in Equation (9) instead of a 2SLS with Δ Crime Perception being the instrumented variable, which would violate the exclusion restriction.

5 Results

5.1 Valuation of Safety in Public Transport

We begin by showing how participants value safety in transportation decisions using a non-choice measure of attribute relevance, where demand effects are not plausible. Before making a choice, participants click through boxes to reveal information about each transportation option, revealing what information commuters consider first. Figure 1 shows that safety and price are consistently the first attributes revealed (i.e., clicked before the other two alternatives).¹¹ This pattern of safety and price being the most relevant attributes is robust across all cities in the study. Table A3 regresses the order in which each attribute was looked up on a series of participant characteristics. The heterogeneity in look-ups reinforces our revealed preference interpretation of the mouse-tracking measure. Reported victims of a crime in transit look safety information significantly earlier ($p = 0.022$), as do lower-income participants ($p = 0.004$). On the other hand, higher-income commuters look up the duration of the trip significantly earlier ($p < 0.001$), consistent with a higher value of time. Overall, our non-choice measure reveals that safety is among the top concerns of Latin American commuters when making transportation decisions.

Figure 1. Mouse-tracking results



Notes: Look-up order is coded as 1 for the attribute revealed first, and 4 for the attribute revealed last. Error bars correspond to the 95% confidence interval of the mean after controlling for demographic characteristics and whether the participants was victim of a crime in public transportation.

The value placed on safety, as revealed by mouse-tracking, is also evident on the substantial safety premium from choice data. In Part 1, participants choose between two transit options that differ in fare and crime levels. Using a price iteration method, we estimate indifference prices¹² across four treatment groups that

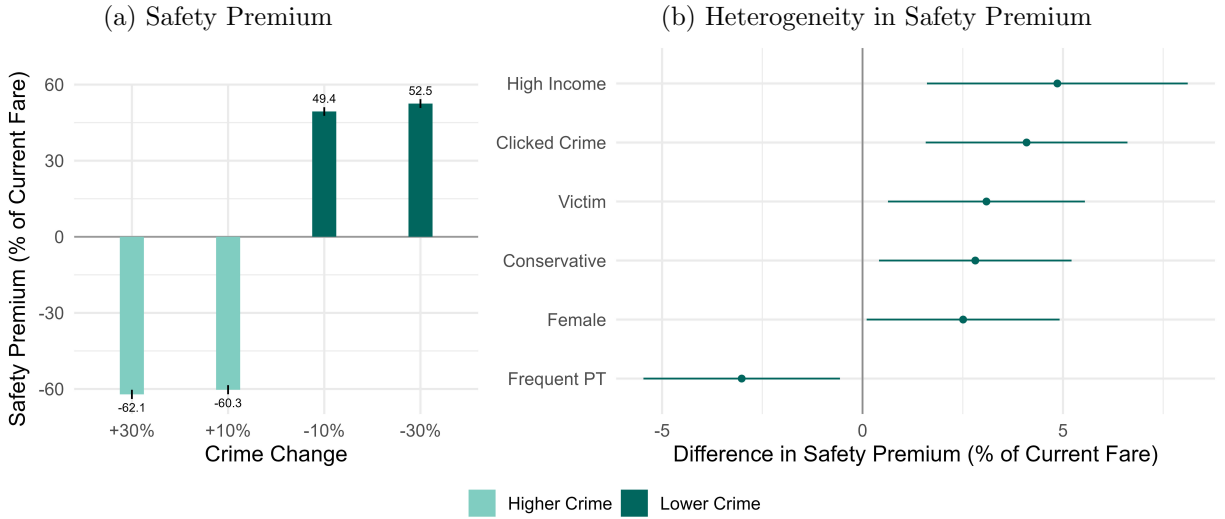
¹¹We randomize the order in which the characteristics are presented by the participants. Therefore, if each participants would click the boxes by their order of appearance, the expected look-up order of each characteristic would be 2.5 ($\frac{1+2+3+4}{4}$), which corresponds to the horizontal black line the Figure 1.

¹²Note that in this context, ‘indifference price’ corresponds to the price that would make the participant indifferent between riding a standard bus and the bus with a different crime level. Given that the only characteristic that varies between them is crime and safety, the difference between the standard fare and the estimated indifferent price is a proxy of the willingness to pay for safety.

vary crime levels by $\pm 10\%$ and $\pm 30\%$ relative to the average. Table A4 (columns (1)-(4)) presents the results from Equation (4) (Table A5 shows the results by city). Our estimates confirm that participants are willing to pay more than the value of an entire fare to ride public transportation with lower crime, relative to higher crime

To ease the interpretation, Panel (a) of Figure 2 presents the average percentage difference between the indifference price associated with each crime-level alternative and the current bus fare in participants' cities. The results show that commuters are willing to pay substantial premiums for safer transit: on average, they are willing to pay fares that are 50% higher for a transit options with less crime. Conversely, commuters require a fare discount of roughly 60% to ride a transit line with higher crime.

Figure 2. Valuation of Safety in Public Transportation



Notes: Panel (a) shows the average indifference price between the treated and the standard public transit options in Part 1, deducting the current fare. Because the two options are identical except for their crime level, we interpret this measure as the safety premium commuters are willing to pay for safety. The safety premium (around an extra 50%) commuters are willing to pay to ride lower-crime transit is shown in dark green. The safety discount (around 60% less) commuters require to ride less higher-crime transit is shown in light green. Error bars correspond to the 95% confidence interval of the means, controlling for gender, age, education, and past victimization. Panel (b) shows the extra safety premium each subsample is willing to pay, compared to the complement subsample. The points show the coefficient of an OLS regression of the safety premium on a series of participant characteristics, including age and education level as control variables, as well as city fixed effects. *High Income* corresponds to participants in the 20% of earners in their city; *Clicked Crime* to participants who clicked the crime attribute first in the mouse-tracking measure; *Victim* to participants who were the victim of a crime in transit during the last year; *Conservative* to participants who report higher than 5 in an ideology scale that goes from 0 (extremely liberal) to 10 (extremely conservative); *Female* to women; *Frequent PT* to the half of participants who use public transit at least 5 days a week. Error bars correspond to the 95% confidence interval of the coefficient.

Notably, we observe striking non-linearities: participants respond similarly to +10% and +30% crime (and to -10% and -30%), but strongly differentiate across the zero threshold. This pattern is consistent with scope insensitivity, a common phenomenon in contingent valuation studies where respondents treat continuous changes in magnitudes as categorical—“higher” or “lower”) (Diamond & Hausman, 1994; Toma & Bell, 2024). Importantly, this phenomenon is not driven by a misunderstanding of probabilities. At the end of the survey, we

include a standard sanity check for the reporting of probabilities (Stöckl & Gleissner, 2018). Most participants pass this check, and we observe similar non-linear valuation patterns among them (Table A4). This suggests the flattening response reflects behavioral attenuation rather than misunderstanding (Enke et al., 2024). Considering these quantitative reasoning limits in valuation tasks, we aggregate treatment groups with the same sign into *Lower Crime* or *Higher Crime* groups in the main text to simplify interpretation. Because of scope insensitivity, throughout the text we treat crime changes as qualitative. Columns (5)-(8) of Table A4 show the results using this aggregation and we find that participants are willing to pay approximately a premium of 115% of the current fare to ride transit with lower crime, compared to a transit option with higher crime.

Figure A1 shows the high valuation of safety is robust across cities in our study, with commuters in Mexico City offering the highest safety premium. Table A6 documents regresses the safety premium or discount required by each commuter on a series of participant characteristics. Consistent with previous findings from the field (Garlick et al., 2025; Kondylis et al., 2025), we find that women place a higher premium on safety, willing to pay 3 percentage points of the fare more than men (6%, $p < 0.001$) to ride lower crime transit. Similarly, victims of crime in transit are willing to pay more for a safer ride ($p = 0.035$). Most frequent transit users, who perceive a higher risk of victimization, are willing to pay less for safety improvements ($p < 0.001$). This pattern is consistent with several interpretations: most frequent transit users would be the most affected from fare increases, and they are already relying on transit despite the high level of perceived crime. Although lower-income people take safety into account earlier when making their modal choice, they are less willing to pay for safety in absolute terms ($p < 0.001$), consistent with a more strict budget constraint. Finally, the mouse-tracking measure provides valuable heterogeneity: those more concerned about safety are willing to pay a higher fare to ride safer transit ($p = 0.005$).

Overall, we find that Latin American commuters place a high value on safe public transit. Safety is among the top concerns when making a modal choice, as our non-choice measure reveals. This concern translates into a high willingness to pay for safer transit: commuters are willing to pay a 50% higher fare to reduce crime on transit. The value of safety in transit is heterogeneous. Women and past victims place a stronger value on safety, while lower-income commuters, who show a high concern for safety, are less willing to pay for safety improvements.

5.2 Effect of Crime on Public Transit Demand and Price Elasticity

Part 2 examines how crime influences the substitution between private and public transportation. Participants choose between a bus and a private taxi, with initial prices held constant across treatments to eliminate anchoring concerns. This setup allows us to study both the extensive margin —whether individuals opt into public transportation at all— and the intensive margin —the fare at which they are indifferent between the two options.

As sketched in the conceptual framework in Section 2, crime affects transportation demand through two

channels. First, the direct effect: higher crime deters some individuals from considering public options altogether. Specifically, the share of participants who never chose public transit —not even when free— increases from 13.9% to 25.2% when the bus crime rate exceeds the city average ($p < 0.001$) (see Figure 3). Table A7 regresses whether each participant never chose transit on a series of covariates. Again, we find women are more responsive to crime in transit, while more frequent riders are less likely to exclude transit even when crime is higher.

Crime not only deters commuters from considering transit, it also reduces its overall appeal. We compare how likely commuters are to choose transit over a private option, at current prices, and under varying levels of crime in transit. The first four columns of Table 1 regress a dummy of whether participants chose public over private transport on the crime levels in public transit. Participants become 15 percentage points (29% more, $p < 0.001$) more likely to choose private transport when crime rates in transit are higher than average. These results are robust across cities and stronger among participants who passed the probability test. Table A8 further dissect the treatment effect by participant characteristics, showing that crime has a similar deterrent effect on the extensive margin across all commuters. To sum, we find that crime in transit prompts substitution from public to private transportation.

Turning to the effect on prices, columns (5)-(8) of Table 1 show that crime significantly shifts the price at which commuters become indifferent between public and private transportation. When crime is higher than average, the indifference price becomes 27% lower ($p < 0.001$), showing that commuters require a price discount to compensate the welfare loss of crime. These results are robust to alternative specifications and to restricting the sample to respondents who passed the probability test. While there are slight differences across cities (Table A9), the effects of crime are robust across commuter characteristics (Table A8).

Table 1. Effect of crime on transit demand, Part 2

	Chose Bus				WTP			
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)	(7)	(8)
Higher Crime	-0.149*** (0.014)	-0.150*** (0.013)	-0.150*** (0.013)	-0.171*** (0.015)	-0.273*** (0.021)	-0.274*** (0.021)	-0.273*** (0.021)	-0.304*** (0.025)
Observations	5,161	5,161	5,161	3,789	5,161	5,161	5,161	3,789
Controls	No	No	Yes	Yes	No	No	Yes	Yes
City FE	No	Yes	Yes	Yes	No	Yes	Yes	Yes
Probability Test	No	No	No	Yes	No	No	No	Yes

Notes: Results from linear regressions with robust standard errors in parentheses (Equation (4)). The dependent variable Chose Bus is a dummy that equals 1 if the participant chose the public option in that decision (Columns (1)-(4)). The dependent variable WTP is the estimated willingness to pay for transit, relative to the current fare price (1 = current fare), using decisions from Part 2 (Columns (5)-(8)). Higher Crime is a dummy that equals one if the participant was assigned to the crime treatment groups with higher crime than average. Columns (3)-(4) and (7)-(8) include age, gender, and education level as control variables. Columns (2)-(4) and (6)-(8) include city fixed effects. Columns (4) and (8) restrict the sample to participants who passed the probability test. Significance levels: *** $p < 0.01$, ** $p < 0.05$, * $p < 0.1$.

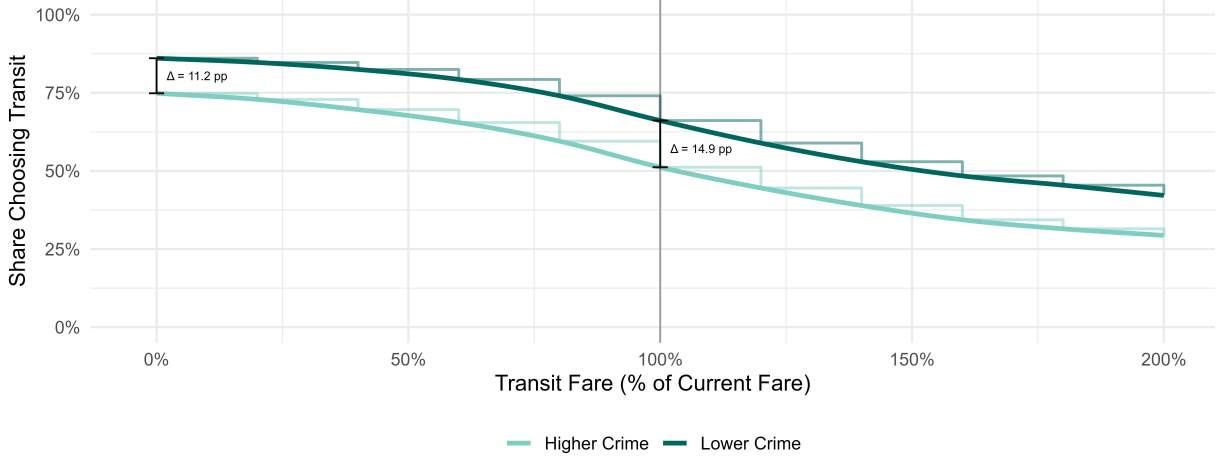
These results highlight that crime makes public transit less attractive, both by deterring marginal riders and by reducing its value to riders. Keeping prices fixed, when public transportation safety decreases, some commuters will stop considering this option, while others who were at the margin will change to other transportation modes. To prevent these marginal commuters from changing to private options, they need to be compensated with lower fares. Overall, these results provide evidence of two mechanisms through which crime reduces public transportation demand.

On the other hand, crime may also alter the responsiveness of ridership to price incentives. Table A11 reports price responsiveness estimates (i.e., Equation (6)) for both parts of the experiment (Table A12 and Table A13 explores heterogeneity by city and individual characteristics, respectively). In Part 1, the average marginal effect of price on the probability of choosing the bus (which we interpret as a proxy of elasticity), is equal to -0.7 , and there is substantial heterogeneity by crime level. In particular, in contexts of higher crime, average responsiveness declines by 10.6% ($p < 0.001$), implying that price cuts are less effective in boosting ridership under high crime scenarios. Conceptually, this aligns with results from the transportation literature (Holmgren, 2007), though our elasticities are somewhat larger, possibly because the outside option in Part 1 is another public transit option.

In Part 2, where the outside option is a private mode, we find an average effect of -0.24 , consistent with previous estimates in the literature (Davis, 2021). Crime shapes this demand in two ways. First, as documented above, higher crime nearly doubles the share of commuters who would not consider transit even when it is free. Second, Column (3) of Table A11 indicates that the price responsiveness of demand declines with crime. However, the interaction coefficient is small, and when we condition on the sample who did the probability correctly, the effect becomes non-significant. For ease of interpretation, Table A11 also shows the average marginal effects to show that these values are similar in both crime environments.

Therefore, we conclude that the predominant effect of crime on transit demand operates through the *direct* channel: higher crime shifts the demand curve inward, so that fewer commuters choose transit even at a zero fare, while the marginal effect of price is similar across crime conditions. Figure 3 shows this directly. The translucent step curve traces the empirical share of participants who would choose the bus at each price, while the solid line is a smooth approximation of demand over the interior prices (that is, excluding the extreme fares). The figure makes our explanation clear: the demand curves for the two crime conditions are separated by a level gap, driven almost entirely by the difference in the share choosing the bus at a zero fare, whereas for participants who would choose the bus at a positive price the slopes of the two curves are almost identical.

Figure 3. Demand for Public Transit as a Function of Price and Crime



Notes: The figure plots the share of participants choosing public transit over the private alternative as a function of the fare (relative to the current fare), separately for the lower- and higher-crime treatments in Part 2. The faint step functions report the empirical share at each fare on the elicitation grid. The solid curves are a monotone spline interpolation through those points. The labels mark the difference in demand between the two treatments at the current price (100%) and when transit is free (0%).

This is consistent with a simple utility model in which money and safety enter utility additively and riders perceive crime as a *per-ride safety tax*: a fixed expected loss from victimization risk incurred each time they board, independent of the fare. However, the doubling of non-consideration under high crime points to a complementary, threshold-based mechanism, such as the one described in Section 2, in the spirit of limited-consideration models (Goeree, 2008; Manski, 1977). *Inframarginal* riders, those who include public transit in their consideration set, trade off crime and fare smoothly and show similar price responsiveness across crime conditions. *Marginal* riders exit the transit market once perceived crime crosses a safety threshold, and no fare reduction brings them back. This two-margin structure suggests that personal safety acts as a binding constraint on ridership (Loukaitou-Sideris, 1999).

For low- and middle-income cities, such as those in our sample, this pattern is especially important. On the one hand, these cities typically have heavily subsidized public transit, so governments have little room to attract additional riders by cutting fares further. On the other hand, they tend to have high crime, and public transport is not perceived as safe. Consequently, investing in safety could draw in a large share of the marginal riders who currently stay away at prevailing safety levels.

To sum up, we identify two distinct effects of crime on transit demand in our survey experiment. First, crime deters commuters from even considering transit, nearly doubling the share of non-considerers in our highest-crime condition. Second, among commuters who do consider transit, crime reduces its value: it shifts the demand curve inward and lowers willingness to pay, without materially changing price responsiveness. Our results suggest that improving transit safety is not only a demand of Latin American commuters but a complement to fare policy: safety expands the pool of commuters for whom fare interventions can move ridership, so the two

policies reinforce rather than substitute for one another.

5.3 Crime Perception and Policy Preferences

So far, we have used exogenous variation in objective crime levels to study the effect of crime on transit demand. However, commuters don't usually have access to crime statistics when making transit choices. Instead, they hold some belief of the probability of being victimized while riding public transit, which we denote *perceived crime*. In this section, we study which commuters perceive more crime, and how this perception affects transit policy preferences.

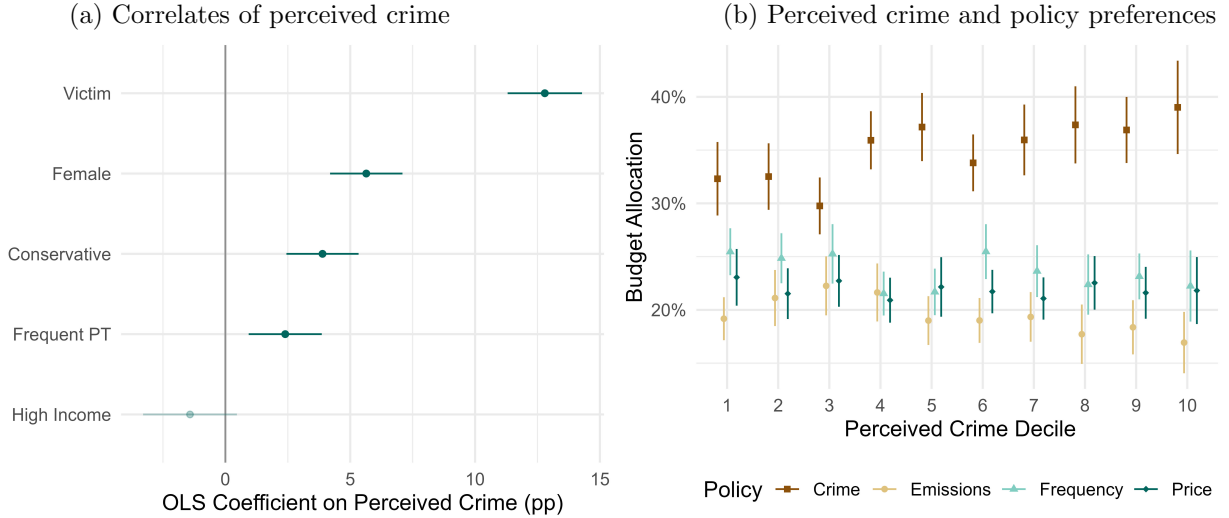
During the experiment, we directly elicit participants' perceived likelihood of being the victim of a crime while using public transit. On average, we find that Latin American commuters perceive a 57% probability of being victimized ¹³. To analyze which commuters drive this high crime perception, we regress crime perception on a series of commuters' characteristics. Figure 4 reports the results of this exercise. Logically, victims of a crime in transit perceive substantially higher crime (20% higher; $p < 0.001$). Women, even when conditioning on past experiences, perceive 11% more risk than men ($p < 0.001$), consistent with the common experience of harassment in transit (Kondylis et al., 2025). More conservative commuters also perceive higher risk of crime, as do more frequent public transit users. We find no correlation of crime perception with within-city income level. Overall, Latin American commuters perceive a high risk of victimization when using public transit, and these perceptions seem calibrated to past experiences.

Higher perceived crime not only conditions demand for transit, but might also affect preferences over transit policies. In Part 3, we ask participants to allocate a municipal budget surplus between four different transit policies: reducing crime in transit, cutting emissions, improving transit frequency, and reducing its price by subsidizing fares. While this task doesn't involve monetary incentives, we incentivize truthful answers by telling participants that their answers will be communicated to the transportation department of their city, a technique that improves response quality (Czajkowski et al., 2017; Vossler & Watson, 2013). Indeed, we find that 97% of our participants allocate the entire budget even when not required to do so, confirming engagement with the task.

First, we note that commuters show strong support for strengthening transit safety: the mean budget allocation to this policy is 35.5%, and 60% of participants make it the priority by allocating the most funds to it. We find that crime perception partly explain preferences over transit policies. Panel (b) on Figure 4 shows that commuters who perceive higher risk of crime allocate more funds to reducing crime, and less to

¹³This figure closely tracks the 56% of our sample who was victimized while using transit during the previous year. While a striking figure, it is consistent with other local studies about safety in transit and with broader victimization statistics within the range of the disperse evidence of victimization in transit in Latin America. Over 50% of commuters of any gender in Buenos Aires and Santiago de Chile report having been assaulted or harassed in public transportation during the previous year (Allen et al., 2018). In Ciudad de Mexico, 85% of citizens report feeling unsafe in public transit, making transit the most unsafe space in the city (Instituto Nacional de Estadística y Geografía, 2025). In Lima, a third of women report having been victimized while using transit in the previous year (Jaitman, 2020). Across all countries included in our study, 30% of urban inhabitants report having been the victims of a crime (robbery, burglary, assault, fraud, blackmail, extortion or violent threats) in the previous year (LAPOP, 2023).

Figure 4. Perceived crime: heterogeneity and policy preferences



Notes: Panel (a) shows the coefficients of a linear regression of perceived crime on a series of covariates. *Victim* corresponds to participants who were the victim of a crime in transit during the previous year; *Female* to women; *Conservative* to participants who report higher than 5 in an ideology scale that goes from 0 (extremely liberal) to 10 (extremely conservative); *Frequent PT* to the half of participants who use public transit at least 5 days a week; and *High Income* to participants in the 20% of earners in their city. Estimates whose CI exclude a null relation are depicted in dark green, while those who include it are depicted in light green. Panel (b) shows the mean budget allocation for each policy, binned by deciles of crime perception in each city. Error bars show the 95% CI. This panel only includes participants in the *Neutral* information provision treatment, to avoid contamination in the budget allocation.

service improvement and fare subsidies. Table 2 confirms these correlations are statistically significant. In sum, commuters transportation policy preferences are aligned with their crime perception.

While informative, the previous results can't identify whether crime perception has a causal effect on policy preferences, or they are both related through other underlying variables. To test for causality, we induce exogenous variation in crime perception by randomly assigning participants to read one of three real newspaper headlines: a negative (*Dangerous*), neutral (*Control*), or positive (*Safe*) news story about public transportation in their city. We then elicit again crime perceptions, this is, the perceived likelihood of being a victim of a crime when using transit. Because this elicitation is done both before and after the information provision treatment, we can measure the changes in perceived crime, and relate them to the treatments. Column (1) of Table A14 reports this manipulation check. While the *Dangerous* treatment significantly rises perceived crime ($p < 0.001$), the *Safe* treatment only reduces it marginally ($p = 0.866$). Column (3) explores the heterogeneous treatment effects, and finds that women drive the response to the *Dangerous* information, while the *Safe* information fails to change the beliefs of frequent transit users—which make most of our sample. Because of the general manipulation failure of the *Safe* information provision, we focus on the *Dangerous* treatment for the subsequent analysis.

Table 2. Effect of information provision on policy preferences

	Crime		Emissions		Frequency		Price	
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)	(7)	(8)
Perceived Crime	0.072*** (0.016)	0.062*** (0.015)	-0.029*** (0.011)	-0.030*** (0.010)	-0.038*** (0.011)	-0.033*** (0.011)	-0.005 (0.012)	0.0006 (0.012)
Info Dangerous	1.65** (0.788)	1.83** (0.768)	-1.22** (0.571)	-0.971* (0.562)	-1.29** (0.567)	-1.53*** (0.567)	0.863 (0.579)	0.672 (0.579)
Observations	3,218	3,127	3,218	3,127	3,218	3,127	3,218	3,127
Controls	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
City FE	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Full Budget Allocated	No	Yes	No	Yes	No	Yes	No	Yes

Notes: Results from linear regressions with robust standard errors in parentheses. The dependent variable Crime is the percentage of the budget allocated to crime reduction, Emissions is the percentage of the budget allocated to emission reduction, Frequency is the percentage of the budget allocated to frequency improvements, and Price is the percentage of the budget allocated to price reductions. Perceived Crime is the perceived probability of being victim of a crime in a given transit ride, in percentage, before the information provision. Info Dangerous is a dummy that equals one if the participant was in the Dangerous information provision treatment, and zero if they were in the Neutral treatment. All specifications include gender, age, and education level as control variables, as well as city fixed effects. Significance levels: *** $p < 0.01$, ** $p < 0.05$, * $p < 0.1$.

Table 2 shows the effect on policy preferences of the information provision treatment. Reading about crime in transit leads participants to redirect 1.65% of the budget (i.e., a 4.6% increase) towards safety policies ($p = 0.036$), and away from frequency improvement ($p = 0.036$) and emission reduction ($p = 0.032$). Importantly, all these effects go in the same direction as the correlation between perceived crime at baseline and policy preferences, reaffirming the causal interpretation of our previous results.¹⁴ Finally, as a robustness check, Table A15 replicates this analysis using the 97% of participants who allocated the full budget and finds virtually identical results.

Taken together, these results highlight two ideas. Commuters in Latin America perceive a high risk of victimization when using public transit, a perception grounded in past experiences and real victimization risk. High perceived crime not only poses a barrier to ridership, but also to supporting other transit policies. When commuters perceive a high risk of crime, they withdraw support from other transit policies, like better service and cleaner transportation. This is consistent with previous evidence from both developed and developing countries, that shows that immediate concerns like safety or economic hardship crowd out support from long-term environmental goals (González & Sánchez, 2022; Weber, 2010). Therefore, our results point to transit safety as a key complement for other policies that aim to improve sustainable urban mobility.

¹⁴ Assuming that the only effect of the information provision is through the channel of perceived crime, we can use the estimates of Table A14 as the first stage in a 2SLS specification. The result of this effect imply that a 1pp increase in perceived crime increases allocations for safety improvements by 0.7pp and reduces allocations for emission reduction and frequency improvement by 0.5pp each. However these implied effects should be taken with caution, as the information provision might affect policy preferences through another unobserved channel, their relative magnitudes are consistent with those estimated from baseline crime perceptions.

6 Conclusion

This paper provides experimental evidence that crime affects Latin American commuters along three dimensions: how they value and choose between modes, how they respond to price incentives, and how they allocate support across competing policy priorities. The findings are consistent. Safety is central to modal choice: crime reduces both the likelihood of choosing public transit and the fare commuters are willing to pay for it. Crime does not merely shift demand downward; it changes the environment in which pricing policy operates. Higher crime nearly doubles the share of commuters who would not choose public transit even if it were free, implying that a large fraction of potential riders cannot be recovered through fare subsidies alone. This extensive-margin effect can go undetected when analysis focuses solely on price responsiveness: in high-crime settings, safety, not price, may be the binding margin.

Crime also shapes policy preferences: although commuters generally support forward-looking policies such as service improvements and emission reductions, higher perceived crime crowds out support for these in favor of safety. Overall, reducing crime and improving perceptions of safety on transit are preconditions for other transit policies to be effective and popular.

These findings have direct implications for how subsidies and safety investments should be sequenced. In cities where crime on transit is pervasive, fare reductions and free-transit programs face a structural limitation: they reach only those already within the consideration set of public transportation. Safety investments, by contrast, operate upstream: they expand the pool of commuters who are even willing to consider public transit. The point is sharpest where crime is high and transit is already heavily subsidized, as in much of Latin America: there, the return per dollar, measured in additional riders, may be higher for safety improvements than for further fare cuts.

The distribution of the costs of crime on transit deserve particular attention. Women, who correctly perceive a higher risk of being victimized, bear a disproportionate share of the costs of crime. Women exhibit a higher willingness to pay for safety and are more likely to not even consider transit under high crime. Our findings point to crime as a barrier for the mobility of women within urban areas, limiting their access to better economic opportunities, education, or healthcare (Borker, 2021; Kondylis et al., 2025). Because many women are on the margin of choosing transit, reducing crime would have a positive impact on the mobility of women, and would promote the substitution from private modes of transport especially for this group. Additionally, because crime makes women particularly less responsive to price incentives, fare subsidies would be more efficient to promote transit among this group when preceded by safety improvements.

On the other hand, we find that while many commuters are highly concerned about crime — and willing to pay a higher fare to make transit safer — they won’t opt out of transit. This group, which we can denote captive riders, are mostly commuters who don’t have an alternative means of transportation and choose to take the risk of victimization when using transit. This is particularly the case of lower income commuters.

They rely on transit more often, show a high concern about safety when choosing a transportation mode, but their choices are less responsive to crime. For these riders, the main cost imposed by crime is not limiting their transportation options, but a welfare loss from crime exposure while using transit. They would benefit from safety improvements by increasing the value of their trips, not by changing their modal choice directly. This concentration of effects on already-vulnerable groups reinforces the case for prioritizing safety investments not only on efficiency grounds, but on equity grounds as well. Given that distributive concerns are a key predictor of support for environmental policies (Dechezleprêtre et al., 2025), improving transit safety for these groups may also strengthen the political foundations of green transportation agendas.

While our design allows for clean causal identification across three distinct outcomes, the external validity of these results warrants some caution, as they come from stated and not revealed preferences. That said, our results are consistent across six cities and multiple elicitation methods, and a growing body of evidence shows that stated-preference experiments reliably capture real-world behavior (Dechezleprêtre et al., 2025; Funk, 2016; Hainmueller et al., 2015). We view these findings as a foundation of an agenda that makes safety a central part of transportation policy. Future field experiments should evaluate the effects of safety improvements on ridership and policy uptake using modal choices in the field.

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A. Additional Tables and Figures

Table A1. Descriptive statistics and balance test

Summary Stats		Balance Table							
		Part 1			Part 2			Part 3	
		+10%	-10%	-30%	+20%	-20%	-30%	Dangerous	Safe
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)	(7)	(8)	(9)
Male (=1)	0.526 (0.499)	0.008 (0.020)	-0.006 (0.020)	-0.001 (0.020)	0.015 (0.020)	0.038* (0.020)	0.033* (0.020)	0.018 (0.017)	-0.008 (0.017)
Residents in HH	3.905 (1.892)	-0.108 (0.076)	-0.068 (0.075)	-0.014 (0.075)	-0.019 (0.076)	0.011 (0.074)	0.041 (0.076)	0.094 (0.066)	0.009 (0.062)
Secondary Schooling	0.218 (0.413)	0.0010 (0.016)	0.014 (0.016)	0.005 (0.016)	0.005 (0.016)	0.004 (0.016)	0.009 (0.016)	0.009 (0.014)	0.018 (0.014)
University Schooling	0.744 (0.437)	0.004 (0.017)	-0.018 (0.017)	-0.010 (0.017)	0.002 (0.017)	-0.006 (0.017)	-0.017 (0.017)	-0.007 (0.015)	-0.008 (0.015)
Age	36.222 (13.417)	0.683 (0.525)	0.609 (0.526)	0.918* (0.522)	0.398 (0.532)	0.256 (0.525)	0.676 (0.533)	-0.377 (0.460)	-0.509 (0.452)
Ideology (Right)	5.794 (2.168)	-0.041 (0.086)	0.031 (0.085)	0.088 (0.085)	-0.035 (0.087)	-0.141* (0.086)	0.164* (0.086)	-0.052 (0.074)	0.037 (0.073)
Trust in Police	4.583 (3.04)	0.053 (0.120)	-0.008 (0.119)	0.006 (0.120)	-0.003 (0.122)	0.052 (0.119)	0.201* (0.121)	-0.201* (0.104)	0.070 (0.103)
Owns Car (=1)	0.433 (0.496)	0.025 (0.019)	-0.005 (0.019)	0.010 (0.019)	0.011 (0.020)	0.010 (0.019)	-0.023 (0.019)	0.007 (0.017)	-0.003 (0.017)
Freq. PT	4.084 (2.046)	0.026 (0.081)	0.112 (0.080)	0.115 (0.080)	-0.005 (0.081)	-0.100 (0.081)	-0.076 (0.081)	0.051 (0.070)	0.033 (0.069)
Victim (=1)	0.542 (0.498)	0.038* (0.020)	0.052*** (0.019)	0.051*** (0.020)	-0.010 (0.020)	-0.033* (0.019)	-0.004 (0.020)	0.023 (0.017)	0.011 (0.017)

Notes: This table presents summary statistics of a given set of covariates and the results of the randomization balance test. *Male(=1)* corresponds to an indicator variable equal to 1 if the observation is male. *Residents in HH* corresponds to the number of people living in the same house as the respondent. *Secondary* and *University Schooling* are two indicator variables equal to 1 if the participant has some Secondary or University Schooling, respectively. *Age* corresponds to the age of the respondent. *Ideology (Right)* is a variable that can take values from 0 to 10, the closer to 0 (10) the closer the respondent identifies to a left- (right-) line of thought, politically. *Trust in Police* is a variable that can take values from 0 to 10, the highest the value the more trust the participant has in the police. *Owns Car (=1)* is an indicator variable equal to 1 if the respondent owns a car. *Freq. PT* corresponds to the number of days that the respondent used the public transportation in the last 7 days. *Victim (=1)* is an indicator variable equal to 1 if the respondent has ever been victim of a crime in the public transportation. Columns (2) to (8) report the coefficients and standard errors for a regression of each variable on each treatment group in the corresponding experiment including city fixed effects (the results from each row come from an independent regression). Columns (2)-(4) correspond to the treatment groups of Part 1. Columns (5)-(7) correspond to the treatment groups of Part 2. Columns (8)-(9) correspond to the treatment groups of Part 3. Heteroskedasticity-robust standard errors are considered. Significance levels: ***p < 0.01, **p < 0.05, *p < 0.1.

Table A2. Comparison of Sample and Population

	Bogotá		Buenos Aires		CDMX		Guatemala		Lima		Santiago	
	Experiment	National Survey	Experiment	National Survey	Experiment	National Survey	Experiment	National Survey	Experiment	National Survey	Experiment	National Survey
Age	37.472	38.715	37.991	38.876	35.510	38.050	30.882	36.573	37.711	39.032	37.855	39.111
Male (%)	0.604	0.481	0.495	0.497	0.556	0.461	0.487	0.447	0.607	0.481	0.404	0.505
Parent (%)	0.634	0.712	0.589	0.799	0.603	0.864	0.568	0.872	0.611	0.853	0.619	0.734
HH Size	3.764	3.210	3.496	3.799	4.136	4.446	4.540	4.854	4.523	4.250	4.132	3.560
Years of Education	14.473	11.609	13.328	11.904	14.649	9.587	13.317	6.674	14.909	11.534	14.331	12.604

Notes: This Table presents a comparison of the mean of a set of variables between our sample and the values computed using surveys of the same cities drawn from a nationally representative survey. For each survey we considered only the responses of the cities that match the ones included in our survey and respondents between the age of 18 and 65, which is the criteria that we used to filter candidates in our experiment. To compute the representative means we used the data of the last quarter of 2023 of the following surveys: the Encuesta Permanente de Hogares (EPH) in Argentina, the Encuesta de Caracterización Socioeconómica Nacional (CASEN) in Chile, the Gran Encuesta Integrada de Hogares (GEIH) in Colombia, the Encuesta Nacional de Empleo e Ingresos (ENEI) in Guatemala, the Encuesta Nacional de Ingresos y Gastos de los Hogares (ENIGH) in Mexico, and the Encuesta Nacional de Hogares (ENAH) in Peru.

Table A3. Heterogeneity in mouse-tracking look-ups

	Crime	Emissions	Length	Price
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
Crime Victim	-0.074** (0.032)	0.044 (0.030)	0.008 (0.033)	0.022 (0.033)
Female	0.048 (0.032)	-0.030 (0.029)	-0.040 (0.032)	0.022 (0.032)
PT Use	0.007 (0.008)	-0.005 (0.007)	-0.004 (0.008)	0.002 (0.008)
Income Quartile	0.035*** (0.012)	-0.004 (0.011)	-0.041*** (0.012)	0.010 (0.012)
Conservative	-0.003 (0.007)	0.003 (0.007)	-0.005 (0.007)	0.004 (0.007)
Age	-0.003** (0.001)	0.003*** (0.001)	-0.0005 (0.001)	-6.72×10^{-5} (0.001)
Observations	5,155	5,155	5,155	5,155
Controls	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
City FE	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes

Notes: Results from linear regressions with robust standard errors in parentheses. The dependent variables are the order in which each attribute of transit was clicked to reveal its information, from 1 (clicked first) to 4 (clicked last). Positive coefficients reflect that attribute was clicked later. Crime Victim is a dummy variables that equal one if the participant was the victim of a crime in transit during the last year. Female is a dummy that equals one if the participant is a woman. PT Use measures the average number of days that the participant uses public transit in a week. Income Quartile is the within-city quartile of income to which the participant belongs. Conservative is a 11 point scale of self-reported ideology that goes from 0 (extremely liberal) to 10 (extremely conservative). Age is measured in years. All specifications include education level as a control and city fixed effects. Significance levels: ***p < 0.01, **p < 0.05, *p < 0.1.

Table A4. Willingness to pay for crime changes, Part 1

	Willingness To Pay							
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)	(7)	(8)
1(+30% Crime)	-1.15*** (0.013)	-1.15*** (0.013)	-1.15*** (0.013)	-1.18*** (0.015)				
1(+10% Crime)	-1.13*** (0.013)	-1.13*** (0.013)	-1.13*** (0.013)	-1.16*** (0.015)				
1(-10% Crime)	-0.031** (0.012)	-0.030** (0.012)	-0.030** (0.012)	-0.037** (0.015)				
Higher Crime					-1.12*** (0.009)	-1.12*** (0.009)	-1.12*** (0.009)	-1.15*** (0.011)
Observations	5,161	5,161	5,161	3,789	5,161	5,161	5,161	3,789
Controls	No	No	Yes	Yes	No	No	Yes	Yes
City FE	No	Yes	Yes	Yes	No	Yes	Yes	Yes
Probability Test	No	No	No	Yes	No	No	No	Yes

Notes: Results from linear regressions with robust standard errors in parentheses (Equation (4)). The dependent variable is the estimated willingness to pay for transit, relative to the current fare price (1 = current fare), using decisions from Part 1. 1(*Crime* = +30%) is a dummy that equals one if the participant was assigned to the crime treatment group +30%. 1(*Crime* = +10%) is a dummy that equals one if the participant was assigned to the crime treatment group +10%. 1(*Crime* = -10%) is a dummy that equals one if the participant was assigned to the crime treatment group -10%. Higher Crime is a dummy that equals one if the participant was assigned to the crime treatment groups with higher crime than average. Columns (1)-(4) show the disaggregated treatment groups, while Columns (5)-(8) show the aggregated groups. Columns (3)-(4) and (7)-(8) include age, gender, and education level as control variables. Columns (2)-(4) and (6)-(8) include city fixed effects. Columns (4) and (8) restrict the sample to participants who passed the probability test. Significance levels: *** $p < 0.01$, ** $p < 0.05$, * $p < 0.1$.

Table A5. Willingness to pay for crime changes, by city, Part 1

	Willingness To Pay					
	Bogotá (1)	Buenos Aires (2)	CDMX (3)	Guatemala (4)	Lima (5)	Santiago (6)
Higher Crime	-1.11*** (0.021)	-1.14*** (0.022)	-1.27*** (0.021)	-1.09*** (0.023)	-1.05*** (0.023)	-1.06*** (0.022)
Observations	872	863	859	871	856	840
Controls	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes

Notes: Results from linear regressions with robust standard errors in parentheses (Equation (4)). The dependent variable is the estimated willingness to pay for transit, relative to the current fare price (1 = current fare), using decisions from Part 1. Higher Crime is a dummy that equals one if the participant was assigned to the crime treatment groups with higher crime than average. All specifications include age, gender, and education level as control variables, as well as city fixed effects. Significance levels: ***p < 0.01, **p < 0.05, *p < 0.1.

Table A6. Heterogeneity of safety premium, Part 1

	Safety Premium			
	Higher Crime (1)	Crime (2)	Lower Crime (3)	Crime (4)
Crime Victim	0.067 (1.34)	-0.451 (1.55)	3.68*** (1.26)	3.71** (1.51)
Female	-3.69*** (1.31)	-5.57*** (1.54)	3.02** (1.23)	2.67* (1.49)
PT Use	1.15*** (0.327)	1.23*** (0.387)	-1.13*** (0.312)	-1.04*** (0.375)
Income	-5.85*** (1.22)	-5.75*** (1.31)	0.721** (0.357)	0.864** (0.429)
Conservative	0.184 (0.301)	0.178 (0.353)	0.627** (0.282)	0.742** (0.350)
MT Safety	1.09* (0.573)	0.872 (0.659)	-1.68*** (0.522)	-1.48** (0.632)
Dep. var. mean	-61.2	-63.7	50.9	51.6
Controls	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
City FE	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Probability Test	No	Yes	No	Yes

Notes: Results from linear regressions with robust standard errors in parentheses. The dependent variable is the safety premium: the difference between the willingness to pay for the treated transit option and the standard line, measured in percentage of the current fare. Columns (1) and (2) show the safety discount required by commuters to ride higher-crime transit (a negative premium), Columns (3) and (4) show the positive premium that commuters are willing to pay to ride lower-crime transit. Crime Victim is a dummy that equals one if the participant was the victim of a crime in transit during the last year. Female is a dummy that equals one if the participant is a woman. PT Use measures the average number of days that the participant uses public transit in a week. Income is normalized within-city. Conservative is a 11 point scale of self-reported ideology that goes from 0 (extremely liberal) to 10 (extremely conservative). MT Safety is the order on which the safety attribute was clicked (1 first, 4 last). All specifications include age and education level as control variables, as well as city fixed effects. Columns (2) and (4) restrict the sample to participants who passed the probability test. Significance levels: *** $p < 0.01$, ** $p < 0.05$, * $p < 0.1$.

Table A7. Effect of crime on including transit on the consideration set

	Transit Not Considered			
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
Higher Crime	11.3*** (1.08)	12.0*** (1.24)	14.0*** (4.06)	12.5*** (4.65)
Female	2.06* (1.11)	2.34* (1.28)	-0.005 (1.36)	0.581 (1.53)
Crime Victim			2.48* (1.37)	1.40 (1.54)
PT Use			-1.48*** (0.362)	-1.45*** (0.408)
Income			0.253 (1.20)	1.47 (1.59)
Conservative			0.421 (0.314)	0.499 (0.355)
Higher Crime $\times$ Crime Victim			2.31 (2.16)	2.45 (2.48)
Higher Crime $\times$ Female			3.80* (2.15)	3.52 (2.46)
Higher Crime $\times$ PT Use			-1.52*** (0.561)	-1.69*** (0.638)
Higher Crime $\times$ Income			-0.619 (1.27)	-1.57 (1.68)
Higher Crime $\times$ Conservative			0.064 (0.496)	0.540 (0.578)
Observations	5,161	3,789	5,155	3,786
Controls	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
City FE	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Probability Test	No	Yes	No	Yes

Notes: Results from linear regressions with robust standard errors in parentheses. The dependent variable is a dummy variable that equals 1 if the participant didn't choose transit when offered for free. Higher Crime is a dummy that equals one if the participant was assigned to the crime treatment groups with higher crime than average. Crime Victim is a dummy that equals one if the participant was the victim of a crime in transit during the last year. Female is a dummy that equals one if the participant is a woman. PT Use measures the average number of days that the participant uses public transit in a week. Income is normalized within-city. Conservative is a 11 point scale of self-reported ideology that goes from 0 (extremely liberal) to 10 (extremely conservative). All specifications include age and education level as control variables, as well as city fixed effects. Column (2) and (4) restrict the sample to participants who passed the probability test / attention check. Significance levels: *** $p < 0.01$, ** $p < 0.05$, * $p < 0.1$.

Table A8. Heterogeneity in effect of crime on transit demand, Part 2

	Chose Bus		WTP	
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
Higher Crime	-0.149*** (0.050)	-0.174*** (0.057)	-0.338*** (0.080)	-0.352*** (0.093)
Crime Victim	-0.041** (0.019)	-0.051** (0.021)	-0.053* (0.029)	-0.050 (0.034)
Female	-0.005 (0.019)	-0.004 (0.021)	-0.016 (0.029)	-0.008 (0.034)
PT Use	0.018*** (0.005)	0.019*** (0.005)	0.022*** (0.008)	0.023*** (0.009)
Income	-0.004 (0.015)	-0.009 (0.017)	0.004 (0.022)	-0.012 (0.029)
Conservative	-0.014*** (0.004)	-0.014*** (0.005)	-0.024*** (0.007)	-0.025*** (0.008)
Higher Crime × Crime Victim	-0.012 (0.027)	0.016 (0.031)	-0.038 (0.043)	-0.033 (0.050)
Higher Crime × Female	-0.014 (0.027)	-0.006 (0.031)	-0.010 (0.042)	-0.017 (0.050)
Higher Crime × PT Use	0.010 (0.007)	0.012 (0.008)	0.030*** (0.011)	0.036*** (0.012)
Higher Crime × Income	-0.004 (0.017)	0.004 (0.020)	-0.011 (0.023)	0.006 (0.031)
Higher Crime × Conservative	-0.004 (0.006)	-0.008 (0.007)	-0.005 (0.010)	-0.011 (0.012)
Observations	5,155	3,786	5,155	3,786
Controls	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
City FE	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Probability Test	No	Yes	No	Yes

Notes: Results from linear regressions with robust standard errors in parentheses. The dependent variable Chose Bus is a dummy that equals 1 if the participant chose the public option in that decision (Columns (1) and (2)). The dependent variable WTP measures the indifference price between the public and private option (Columns (3) and (4)). Higher Crime is a dummy that equals one if the participant was assigned to the crime treatment groups with higher crime than average. Crime Victim is a dummy that equals one if the participant was the victim of a crime in transit during the last year. Female is a dummy that equals one if the participant is a woman. PT Use measures the average number of days that the participant uses public transit in a week. Income is normalized within-city. Conservative is a 11 point scale of self-reported ideology that goes from 0 (extremely liberal) to 10 (extremely conservative). All specifications include age and education level as control variables, as well as city fixed effects. Column (2) and (4) restrict the sample to participants who passed the probability test / attention check. Significance levels: ***p < 0.01, **p < 0.05, *p < 0.1.

Table A9. Effect of crime on transit demand, Part 2, by city

	Chose Bus						WTP					
	Bogotá (1)	Buenos Aires (2)	CDMX (3)	Guatemala (4)	Lima (5)	Santiago (6)	Bogotá (7)	Buenos Aires (8)	CDMX (9)	Guatemala (10)	Lima (11)	Santiago (12)
Higher Crime	-0.205*** (0.052)	-0.172*** (0.050)	-0.356*** (0.051)	-0.290*** (0.053)	-0.351*** (0.054)	-0.292*** (0.051)	-0.143*** (0.034)	-0.086*** (0.032)	-0.181*** (0.032)	-0.177*** (0.034)	-0.185*** (0.034)	-0.142*** (0.032)
Observations	872	863	859	871	856	840	872	863	859	871	856	840
Controls	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes

Notes: Results from linear regressions with robust standard errors in parentheses (Equation (4)). The dependent variable Chose Bus is a dummy that equals 1 if the participant chose the public option in that decision (Columns (1)-(6)). The dependent variable WTP is the estimated willingness to pay for transit, relative to the current fare price (1 = current fare), using decisions from Part 2 (Columns (7)-(12)). Higher Crime is a dummy that equals one if the participant was assigned to the crime treatment groups with higher crime than average. All specifications include gender, age, and education level as control variables, as well as city fixed effects. Significance levels: *** $p < 0.01$, ** $p < 0.05$, * $p < 0.1$.

Table A10. Effect of crime on transit demand, Part 2, disaggregated treatment groups

	Chose Bus			WTP		
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)
1(+30% Crime)	-0.135*** (0.019)	-0.138*** (0.019)	-0.138*** (0.019)	-0.260*** (0.030)	-0.264*** (0.030)	-0.265*** (0.030)
1(+20% Crime)	-0.144*** (0.019)	-0.142*** (0.019)	-0.142*** (0.019)	-0.267*** (0.030)	-0.263*** (0.030)	-0.263*** (0.030)
1(-20% Crime)	0.020 (0.019)	0.021 (0.018)	0.021 (0.018)	0.019 (0.029)	0.021 (0.029)	0.020 (0.029)
Observations	5,161	5,161	5,161	5,161	5,161	5,161
Controls	No	No	Yes	No	No	Yes
City FE	No	Yes	Yes	No	Yes	Yes

Notes: Results from linear regressions with robust standard errors in parentheses (Equation (4)). The dependent variable Chose Bus is a dummy that equals 1 if the participant chose the public option in that decision (Columns (1)-(3)). The dependent variable WTP is the estimated willingness to pay for transit, relative to the current fare price (1 = current fare), using decisions from Part 2 (Columns (4)-(6)). 1(*Crime* = +30%) is a dummy that equals one if the participant was assigned to the crime treatment group +30%. 1(*Crime* = +20%) is a dummy that equals one if the participant was assigned to the crime treatment group +20%. 1(*Crime* = -20%) is a dummy that equals one if the participant was assigned to the crime treatment group -20%. Higher Crime is a dummy that equals one if the participant was assigned to the crime treatment groups with higher crime than average. Columns (3) and (6) include age, gender, and education level as control variables. Columns (2)-(3) and (5)-(6) include city fixed effects. Significance levels: ***p < 0.01, **p < 0.05, *p < 0.1.

Table A11. Price Responsiveness of Demand

	Chose Bus			
	Part 1		Part 2	
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
Price	-4.40*** (0.086)	-4.15*** (0.094)	-1.22*** (0.032)	-1.13*** (0.037)
Higher Crime	-5.43*** (0.140)	-5.28*** (0.155)	-0.738*** (0.071)	-0.802*** (0.086)
Price $\times$ Higher Crime	0.695*** (0.114)	0.588*** (0.127)	0.086** (0.044)	0.071 (0.050)
AME - High Crime	-0.673	-0.644	-0.247	-0.232
AME - Low Crime	-0.760	-0.739	-0.240	-0.214
Observations	56,771	41,679	56,771	41,679
Controls	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
City FE	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Probability Test	No	Yes	No	Yes

Notes: Results from logit regressions with standard errors clustered by subject in parentheses (Equation 6). The dependent variable Chose Bus is a dummy that equals 1 if the participant chose the ‘treated’ public option in that decision (Bus B in Part 1, Bus in Part 2). Price measures the price of the treated option, relative to the current fare price (1 = current fare). Higher Crime is a dummy that equals one if the participant was assigned to the crime treatment groups with higher crime than average. All specifications include gender, age, and education level as control variables. Columns (1)-(2) use the decisions from Part 1, where the outside option is another public bus, and Columns (3)-(4) the decisions from Part 2, where the outside option is a private taxi. Significance levels: ***p < 0.01, **p < 0.05, *p < 0.1.

Table A12. Price responsiveness results by city

	Chose Bus											
	Part 1						Part 2					
	Bogotá (1)	Buenos Aires (2)	CDMX (3)	Guatemala (4)	Lima (5)	Santiago (6)	Bogotá (7)	Buenos Aires (8)	CDMX (9)	Guatemala (10)	Lima (11)	Santiago (12)
Price	-4.90*** (0.227)	-4.50*** (0.217)	-4.39*** (0.202)	-4.17*** (0.205)	-4.01*** (0.189)	-5.17*** (0.260)	-1.22*** (0.076)	-1.16*** (0.082)	-1.29*** (0.084)	-1.21*** (0.074)	-1.22*** (0.076)	-1.34*** (0.089)
Higher Crime	-6.05*** (0.358)	-5.60*** (0.354)	-6.14*** (0.349)	-5.02*** (0.329)	-4.56*** (0.310)	-6.15*** (0.405)	-0.434*** (0.165)	-0.348* (0.199)	-1.13*** (0.185)	-0.741*** (0.159)	-0.977*** (0.171)	-0.928*** (0.191)
Price $\times$ Higher Crime	1.11*** (0.296)	0.610** (0.286)	0.392 (0.283)	0.723*** (0.268)	0.535** (0.257)	1.27*** (0.319)	-0.032 (0.106)	-0.088 (0.114)	0.221** (0.110)	0.089 (0.104)	0.158 (0.104)	0.182 (0.116)
Observations	9,592	9,493	9,449	9,581	9,416	9,240	9,592	9,493	9,449	9,581	9,416	9,240
Controls	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes

Notes: Results from logit regressions with standard errors clustered by subject in parentheses (Equation 7). The dependent variable Chose Bus is a dummy that equals 1 if the participant chose the ‘treated’ public option in that decision (Bus B in Part 1, Bus in Part 2). Price measures the price of the treated option, relative to the current fare price (1 = current fare). Higher Crime is a dummy that equals one if the participant was assigned to the crime treatment groups with higher crime than average. All specifications include gender, age, and education level as control variables. Columns (1)-(6) use the decisions from Part 1, where the outside option is another public bus, and Columns (7)-(12) the decisions from Part 2, where the outside option is a private taxi. Significance levels: ***p < 0.01, **p < 0.05, *p < 0.1.

Table A13. Heterogeneity in price responsiveness

	Chose Bus			
	Part 1		Part 2	
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
Price	-3.91*** (0.319)	-3.67*** (0.353)	-0.815*** (0.117)	-0.727*** (0.135)
Higher Crime	-5.01*** (0.519)	-4.64*** (0.578)	-0.826*** (0.268)	-0.678** (0.320)
Price $\times$ Higher Crime	0.655 (0.424)	0.231 (0.478)	0.030 (0.161)	-0.153 (0.185)
Price $\times$ Crime Victim	0.151 (0.177)	0.203 (0.193)	0.150** (0.066)	0.119 (0.076)
Price $\times$ Female	0.093 (0.173)	0.097 (0.191)	-0.049 (0.064)	0.020 (0.074)
Price $\times$ PT Use	-0.147*** (0.042)	-0.157*** (0.046)	-0.102*** (0.016)	-0.113*** (0.018)
Price $\times$ Income	0.020 (0.067)	-0.006 (0.075)	0.054 (0.055)	0.096** (0.045)
Price $\times$ Conservative	-0.011 (0.040)	-0.007 (0.046)	-0.012 (0.015)	-0.008 (0.018)
Price $\times$ Higher Crime $\times$ Crime Victim	-0.188 (0.234)	-0.255 (0.260)	-0.047 (0.090)	-0.057 (0.102)
Price $\times$ Higher Crime $\times$ Female	0.159 (0.231)	0.149 (0.257)	0.197** (0.088)	0.149 (0.101)
Price $\times$ Higher Crime $\times$ PT Use	0.083 (0.057)	0.128** (0.064)	0.047** (0.021)	0.058** (0.024)
Price $\times$ Higher Crime $\times$ Income	0.429*** (0.164)	0.315* (0.190)	-0.088 (0.063)	-0.114** (0.057)
Price $\times$ Higher Crime $\times$ Conservative	-0.045 (0.053)	-0.015 (0.061)	-0.036* (0.021)	-0.009 (0.024)
Observations	56,705	41,646	56,705	41,646
Controls	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
City FE	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Probability Test	No	Yes	No	Yes

Notes: Results from logit regressions with standard errors clustered by subject in parentheses (Equation (7)). The dependent variable Chose Bus is a dummy that equals 1 if the participant chose the ‘treated’ public option in that decision (Bus B in Part 1, Bus in Part 2). Price measures the price of the treated option, relative to the current fare price (1 = current fare). Higher Crime is a dummy that equals one if the participant was assigned to the crime treatment groups with higher crime than average. Crime Victim is a dummy that equals one if the participant was the victim of a crime in transit during the last year. Female is a dummy that equals one if the participant is a woman. PT Use measures the average number of days that the participant uses public transit in a week. Income is normalized within-city. Conservative is a 11 point scale of self-reported ideology that goes from 0 (extremely liberal) to 10 (extremely conservative). Because of length, we don’t report the coefficients of participant characteristics nor their interactions with the treatment (already reported in Table A8). All specifications include age and education level as control variables, as well as city fixed effects. Columns (1) and (2) use the decisions from Part 1, where the outside option is another public bus, and Columns (3) and (4) the decisions from Part 2, where the outside option is a private taxi. Column (2) and (4) restrict the sample to participants who passed the probability test / attention check. Significance levels: ***p < 0.01, **p < 0.05, *p < 0.1.

Table A14. Manipulation Check of Information Provision Treatments

	Change in Perceived Crime			
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
Info Dangerous	2.45*** (0.590)	2.56*** (0.620)	-1.56 (2.12)	-2.19 (2.23)
Info Safe	-0.100 (0.593)	0.118 (0.622)	-3.67 (2.27)	-4.52** (2.30)
Female	0.824* (0.487)	0.825 (0.507)	-0.937 (0.828)	-0.983 (0.881)
Crime Victim			-1.23 (0.838)	-1.08 (0.888)
PT Use			-0.449** (0.202)	-0.516** (0.216)
Income			0.196 (0.525)	0.331 (0.560)
Conservative			0.096 (0.199)	0.046 (0.211)
Info Dangerous × Crime Victim			1.34 (1.20)	1.67 (1.26)
Info Safe × Crime Victim			1.12 (1.22)	0.877 (1.27)
Info Dangerous × Female			3.40*** (1.18)	3.40*** (1.24)
Info Safe × Female			1.55 (1.20)	1.74 (1.26)
Info Dangerous × PT Use			0.032 (0.294)	0.065 (0.312)
Info Safe × PT Use			0.720** (0.305)	0.845*** (0.312)
Info Dangerous × Income			-0.186 (0.583)	-0.340 (0.613)
Info Safe × Income			0.214 (0.651)	0.119 (0.677)
Info Dangerous × Conservative			0.287 (0.280)	0.358 (0.298)
Info Safe × Conservative			-0.117 (0.304)	-0.019 (0.315)
Observations	5,161	4,718	5,155	4,712
Controls	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
City FE	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes

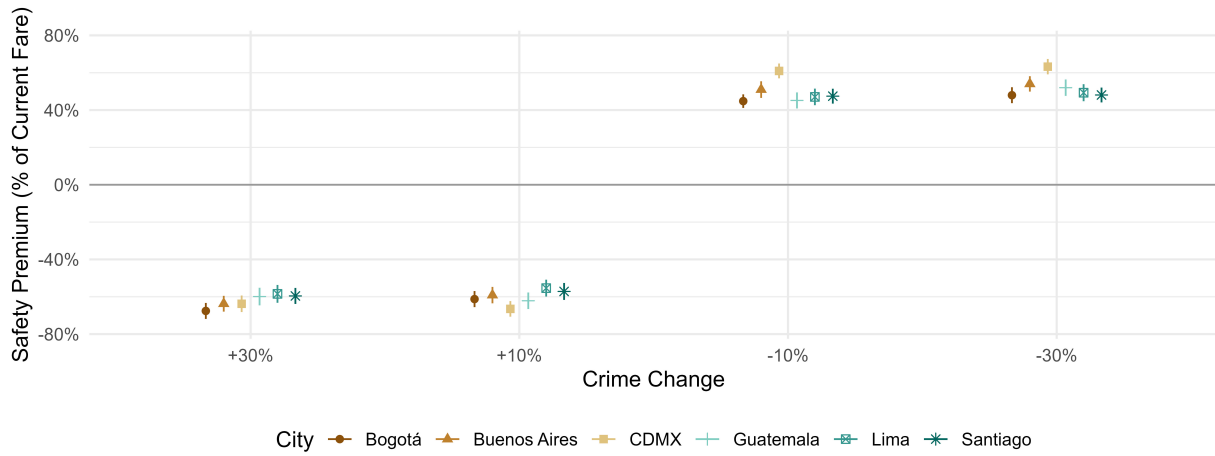
Notes: Results from linear regressions with robust standard errors in parentheses. The dependent variable is the change in perceived crime between the two elicitations —before and after the information provision treatment, in probability points. Info Dangerous is the a dummy that equals one if the participant was in the Dangerous information provision treatment, and zero if they were in the Neutral treatment. Info Safe is the a dummy that equals one if the participant was in the Safe information provision treatment, and zero if they were in the Neutral treatment. Crime Victim is a dummy that equals one if the participant was the victim of a crime in transit during the last year. Female is a dummy that equals one if the participant is a woman. PT Use measures the average number of days that the participant uses public transit in a week. Income is normalized within-city. Conservative is a 11 point scale of self-reported ideology that goes from 0 (extremely liberal) to 10 (extremely conservative). All specifications include control variables and city fixed effects. The vector of control variables considered are age and level of education. Columns (2) and (4) restrict the sample to those who allocate the entire budget in Part 3. Significance levels: ***p < 0.01, **p < 0.05, *p < 0.1.

Table A15. Effect of information provision on policy preferences, participants that allocated all budget

	Crime	Emissions	Frequency	Price
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
Perceived Crime	0.062*** (0.015)	-0.030*** (0.010)	-0.033*** (0.011)	0.0006 (0.012)
Info Dangerous	1.83** (0.768)	-0.971* (0.562)	-1.53*** (0.567)	0.672 (0.579)
Observations	3,127	3,127	3,127	3,127
Controls	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
City FE	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes

Notes: Results from a linear regression with robust standard errors in parentheses. The dependent variable Crime is the percentage of the budget allocated to crime reduction, Emissions is the percentage of the budget allocated to emission reduction, Frequency is the percentage of the budget allocated to frequency improvements, and Price is the percentage of the budget allocated to price reductions. Baseline Perceived Crime is the perceived probability of being victim of a crime in a given transit ride, in percentage. Info Dangerous is the a dummy that equals one if the participant was in the Dangerous information provision treatment, and zero if they were in the Neutral treatment. All specifications include control variables and city fixed effects. The vector of control variables considered are age, gender, and level of education. Significance levels: *** $p < 0.01$, ** $p < 0.05$, * $p < 0.1$.

Figure A1. Valuation of Safety Change in Public Transit



Notes: Safety Premium corresponds to the difference between the current fare and the willingness to pay for the ‘treated’ transit option, expresses as percentage of the current fare. Error bars correspond to the 95% confidence interval of the mean after controlling for age, gender, education level, and past victimization.

B. Survey Experiment Overview

Figure B1. Part 1

Now, we would like to ask you to make a decision based on the characteristics of two transit modes, which we will introduce to you next. In order to see the characteristics of the first transit mode, you must click on each of the boxes on the column on the left.

The characteristics of the second transit mode will appear once you have clicked on all these boxes.

BUS A	BUS B
Safety A	
Length of ride A	
Price A	
Pollution A	

Now, we would like to ask you to make a decision based on the characteristics of two transit modes, which we will introduce to you next. In order to see the characteristics of the first transit mode, you must click on each of the boxes on the column on the left.

The characteristics of the second transit mode will appear once you have clicked on all these boxes.

BUS A		BUS B
Same as average (on bus lines)	Crime Rate	30% below average (on bus lines)
20 min	Length of ride (in minutes)	20 min
JMD 160.00	Fare Price	JMD 240.00
873g of CO2	Grams of CO2 emitted per passenger	873g of CO2
Please select the option you would choose		
BUS A		BUS B

What decision would you make now that the price of Bus B is higher?

BUS A

Same as average
(on bus lines)

20 min

JMD 160.00

873g of CO₂

Crime Rate

Length of ride (in minutes)

Fare Price

Grams of CO₂ emitted per passenger

BUS B

30% below average
(on bus lines)

20 min

~~JMD 240.00~~ **JMD 256.00**

873g of CO₂

Please select the option you would choose

BUS A

BUS B

Figure B2. Part 2

Now, instead of choosing between two buses, you will have to decide between an Uber Private Taxi and a public bus in your city.

UBER		BUS
20 min	Length of ride (in minutes)	33 min
Pollution 1530g of CO2	Grams of CO2 emitted per passenger	Pollution 873g of CO2
Same as average (in private taxis)	Crime Rate	20% below average (on bus lines)
JMD 5,000.00	Fare Price	JMD 160.00
<u>Please select the option you would choose</u>		
UBER		BUS

Figure B3. Part 3

Robos en manada en colectivos: la nueva modalidad que sufren los pasajeros en la Ciudad

Son grupos que suben a los micros, fingen no conocerse y antes de bajar arrebatan celulares y mochilas. Palermo y Recoleta, las zonas más afectadas.

Translation: “Group thefts on buses: the new modality of crime that commuters suffer in the city [of Buenos Aires]. They are groups that board the buses, pretend to not know each other, and then steal cell phones and backpacks before leaving. Palermo and Recoleta, the most affected areas.”

Imagine that Buenos Aires’ government is debating how to spend a US\$120,000 budget to improve public transit.

Please keep in mind that the money spent on one area cannot be spent on another area.

You will be asked about how you think these funds should be used.

The results of this study will be presented to the agency in charge of public transit in your city. Your answer may influence the government’s choices in your city, so it is in your best interest to be honest and careful in your answers.

From 0% to 100%, in which 0% means *impossible* and 100% means *most certainly*.

During your average commuting, how likely would you say you are to be a victim of crime while using public transit in your city?

How many thousands of dollars would you allocate to each of the policies?
Please indicate in each of the boxes below how much of the total budget you would allocate to each of the following policies:

Available: 0

To continue, you must have 0 dollars available.

Reduce CO2 emissions

30

Increase transit frequency

30

Reduce crime within public transportation

20

Reduce the cost of fares

40